

Divorce-induced health decline and the impact on mortality risk*

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Abstract

Divorce is linked to elevated mortality. However, the causal mechanisms underlying this relationship are complex and remain insufficiently identified. Health is one such mechanism and is the focus of this paper. Using linked administrative data from the German Pension Insurance Fund (DRV), we examine whether divorce increases the risk of an initial musculoskeletal rehabilitation, and how much of the divorce-mortality gap runs through this channel. Rehabilitation is administered by the DRV and is granted only once a musculoskeletal condition has become chronic and threatens the ability to work. Our outcome measures the crossing of an institutional threshold rather than the onset of disease. We build annual risk sets of individuals experiencing a first (observable) divorce and individuals who have not yet divorced in that year and then use propensity score matching to generate comparable matches. **Results: Divorce effect on cumulative incidence of musculoskeletal rehab, divorce effect on mortality, results from decomposition**

Keywords: divorce, health, rehabilitation, mortality

JEL Classification: H75, I12, J12

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1 Introduction

The link between divorce and mortality has been widely discussed in social epidemiological studies. Register-based studies have used Finnish data (Metsä-Simola and Martikainen, 2013), Norwegian data (Berntsen and Kravdal, 2012) and English/Welsh data (Grundy and Tomassini, 2010). Until recently, Germany has been a difficult setting for this question. Brockmann and Klein (2004) is the only study to the best of our knowledge which explicitly analyzes the link between divorce and mortality although the dataset used in the study is the SOEP¹ which is not an administrative dataset. Since 2011, it is possible to link different administrative datasets from the German Pension Insurance Fund (DRV) using a unique identifier, allowing us to access full income biographies, divorce information², rehabilitation history and death. The availability of this dataset led to the conception of the project *Divorce and Diagnosis (DiDi): Register-based Analysis on the Role of Divorce in Health and Employment Dynamics*³, which constitutes our study.

Our study focuses on the interaction between divorce, health and mortality. While there can be a direct link between divorce and mortality if divorce results in suicide (Kposowa, 2000; Stevenson and Wolfers, 2006) or homicide, causal evidence remains scarce when the link is indirect. Hence, we chose health as it is one possible indirect link tying together divorce and mortality. There can, however, still be threats to identification as health is not only a consequence but also a cause of divorce (Torvik et al., 2015). Furthermore, the individuals who choose to divorce may not necessarily be random. Many of the register-based studies make use of hazard models to estimate excess mortality risk after divorce and controls for sociodemographic and socioeconomic variables. For Germany, Brockmann and Klein (2004) account for health by using the self-reported health measure from the German SOEP and control for variables associated with marital status to find that divorced men have 51% higher mortality than married men while there is no significant effect for women. Leopold (2018) presents a very careful multi-outcome treatment of the gendered consequences of divorce over time, but it is not designed to control for the health that occurs before from the health consequences which follow the divorce. In our paper, we control for pre-existing health trends and other factors which occur before the divorce by using propensity score matching to answer the following questions

RQ1: Does divorce raise the risk of musculoskeletal rehabilitation⁴ among divorced and non-divorced individuals?

RQ2: Is some of the excess mortality caused by divorce occurring because divorce caused additional musculoskeletal deterioration?

For context, the DRV only grants rehabilitation once the musculoskeletal condition is chronic to the point that it threatens working ability (Deutsche Rentenversicherung Bund, 2005). We do not argue that divorce causes musculoskeletal disease but rather whether divorce moves individuals who carry a latent vulnerability across the legal

¹German Socioeconomic Panel

²This information is available due to the law of splitting pension points.

³This project is a collaboration between the Federal Institute for Population Research, Hertie School, Charité - Universitätsmedizin Berlin and the DRV.

⁴Musculoskeletal diseases are the most common cause of lost work time in Germany.

threshold where rehabilitation becomes necessary. Please see Section 2.3 for a more detailed discussion.

Results... maybe policy implications?

Section 2 provides a literature review, Section 3 introduces the data and methodology, Section 4 presents the results, Section 5 discusses the implications and Section 6 concludes.

2 Literature review

2.1 Link between divorce and mortality

The link between divorce and mortality risk is widely documented in sociology and epidemiology. In a meta-analysis, Shor et al. (2012) run meta-regressions on 625 mortality risk estimates over 104 studies and find that the mean hazard ratio was 1.30 for divorced individuals. The hazard ratio is slightly higher for men at 1.37 and lower for women at 1.22, although the difference between genders decrease with age. However, heterogeneity on the effect on death exists depending on the time since divorce. Metsä-Simola and Martikainen (2013) finds that excess mortality among Finnish men, tied to accidental, violent or alcohol-related deaths, is highest immediately after divorce and declines over time. On the other hand, Berntsen and Kravdal (2012) finds that excess mortality among Norwegian men increases with time since divorce and remarriage can change the magnitude of the effect. In Germany, the evidence is more limited. 2004 (2004) use event-history models which account for marital transitions and duration in each marital status. They find evidence of selection into marriage and that mortality risk is lower when the marriage duration is longer.

Most of the previous studies establish a robust association, however, causal evidence remains scarce as divorce is not random. Sbarra and Nietert (2009) follow 1376 individuals in the Charleston Heart Study for forty years and show that the definition of the exposure determines the size of the effect. Individuals who are continuously separated or divorced have a higher hazard ratio (1.66) compared to individuals who have ever been separated or divorced (0.98). Wiborg and Gugushvili (2025) initially find raised hazard ratios for divorced men (1.59) and women (1.47) using Norwegian data. After using twin-pairs to account for genetic and early developmental and environmental factors, the relationship between divorce and mortality disappears.

2.2 Divorce and health

The effect of divorce on health is difficult to isolate due to the possibility of reverse causality. Joung et al. (1998), using Dutch data, find that married individuals who had more subject health complaints were 1.5 times more likely to divorce, while individuals who reported multiple chronic conditions were twice as likely to divorce. Torvik et al. (2015) corroborates Joung et al. (1998)'s findings with Norwegian data. Poor health behaviors including smoking, drinking, and lack of exercise in addition to mental distress predict subsequent divorce. Metsä-Simola and Martikainen (2013), with Finnish data, find that psychotropic medication use among individuals who divorce is already elevated five years before hand and peaks at around six to nine months just

before divorce. Wade and Pevalin (2004) find worse mental health among those divorcing or divorced than among the married using British data. Generally, poor health tends to precede divorce.

To deal with health selection, Kohn and Averett (2014) estimates a dynamic model that accounts for the persistence of health and how it interacts with relationship status using 18 waves of the British Household Panel Survey. The result is that divorce has a marginally significant effect on the health of men younger than 45. Sbarra et al. (2014) also finds only a marginal effect of divorce on health. After matching individuals on divorce probability, Sbarra et al. (2014) finds that only individuals who were already depressed before divorce experienced major depressive episodes following divorce. With respect to mental health, Björkenstam et al. (2013) find that divorced individuals have thrice the risk of psychiatric inpatient care compared with married individuals in Sweden. Meulman et al. (2023) find similar results in the Netherlands where divorced individuals had higher health expenditures dedicated to mental health care. In terms of physical health, the evidence is heterogeneous. Zulkarnain and Korenman (2019) find that women who divorce at older ages tend to have more physical changes than men. Leopold (2018), on the other hand, find that men are more vulnerable in the short run in terms of well-being although the gender differences narrow in the medium run. Pellón-Elexpuru et al. (2024), in a meta-analysis across 94 studies find that divorced individuals report worse self-rated physical conditions with higher complaints of musculoskeletal, cardiovascular and cerebrovascular conditions although the effect is not significant.

2.3 Divorce and musculoskeletal disease

Evidence on the pathway from divorce to musculoskeletal impairment is rather limited and ambiguous. However, we chose to focus on musculoskeletal diseases because they are a major source of disability and work interruption in Germany⁵. The DRV Reha-Atlas (Deutsche Rentenversicherung Bund, 2024) reports of all completed medical rehabilitations, orthopedic conditions are the most common, accounting for 35.6% of rehabilitations among women and 35.5% among men. Brenscheidt et al. (2026) reports that musculoskeletal diseases account for 21% of certified incapacity days in 2024, which is the largest diagnostic group.

Sjögren et al. (2009), using Danish data, find that chronic pain is more common among individuals who are divorced, separated or widowed, where musculoskeletal diseases accounted for 66.8% of the cause of chronic pain. However, Choi and Wagner (2026), using the Health and Retirement Survey find that individuals who transition from marriage to divorce tend to have a lower probability of high-impact pain. On the other hand, Cimas et al. (2026) using SHARE⁶ data, find that there are gender differences. While divorced women have a higher incidence of chronic musculoskeletal pain, men have a lower prevalence. Meanwhile, Andorsen et al. (2017) finds that there is no significant effect between divorce and musculoskeletal complaints using Norwegian data.

While the impact of divorce on musculoskeletal diseases is ambiguous, the evidence on

⁵Please see the section on Rehabilitation system in Germany in the Appendix.

⁶Survey of Health, Aging and Retirement in Europe

the relationship between social support and the consequences of musculoskeletal diseases is more homogeneous. Prang et al. (2015) finds that individuals who have support from family friends and neighbors tend to have less persistent pain associated with musculoskeletal diseases, while widowed, separated or divorced individuals, in the absence of a network, tend to have a higher probability of persistent pain. Woods (2005) corroborates this and finds that a lack of support is associated with higher musculoskeletal morbidity, absence from work and subsequently, failure to return to work. Reese et al. (2010) finds that the quality of marriages matter, i.e. individuals with arthritis in problematic marriages tend to have more pain complaints and disability compared to individuals in well-adjusted marriages. This could signify that a decline in the relationship quality prior to divorce leads to poorer support, hence more complaints of pain. Couch et al. (2015) and Tamborini et al. (2016) find that divorce is associated with subsequent health threatening the ability to work, especially among individuals who do not remarry, although they do not differentiate by types of diseases.

2.4 Musculoskeletal disease and death

Musculoskeletal conditions are rarely direct causes of death in the way that cardiovascular diseases are. They often operate indirectly, for example through inflammation affecting the cardiovascular disease risk. Rheumatoid arthritis and chronic inflammatory activity can contribute to oxidative stress, dysfunction of blood vessels, arterial build-up and other cardiovascular risks (England et al., 2018). Cardiovascular mortality among people with rheumatoid arthritis is about 60% higher than the general population (Meulman et al., 2009). For non-inflammatory conditions, musculoskeletal conditions causes pain and restricted movement, which then makes people avoid physical activity. This reduces cardiovascular health and fitness, which then potentially increases the risk of comorbidities. Nüesch et al. (2011) finds that English patients with knee or hip osteoarthritis tend to have higher all-cause and cardiovascular mortality. Hawker et al. (2014) finds a similar result with Canadian patients.

Jansson, Mittendorfer-Rutz, and Alexanderson (2012) is more related to our study. Using Swedish register data, the authors compared individuals who were absent from work due to musculoskeletal diseases with people who were absent from work due to other diseases and people who were not absent from work. They find that among three categories of musculoskeletal diseases, the all-cause morbidity was 1.3 to 1.5 times higher. Given that musculoskeletal diseases account for the highest share of rehabilitations facilitated by the DRV, it is important that rehabilitation can encourage return to work and by extension, reduce the all-cause mortality attributed to musculoskeletal diseases. Bethge et al. (2019) finds that work-related medical rehabilitation tends to increase the return to work rate by 5.8 percentage points and shortens the median time to return by 9.46 days compared to conventional medical rehabilitation. In our study, the first completed DRV-facilitated musculoskeletal rehabilitation should be interpreted as an indicator of serious, work-relevant impairment and also receipt of potentially beneficial treatment.

3 Data and methodology

3.1 Data

The Research Data Center of the DRV allows linkages of different datasets starting from the reporting year 2011 through a unique identifier (Forschungsdatenzentrum Rentenversicherung, 2025). The datasets we use are AKVS⁷, LTVS⁸, RTBN⁹, RTWF¹⁰, RSD¹¹ and VA¹². The time period covered by the data is 2011 to 2023.

The AKVS, LTVS and RTBN are merged by the DRV to form the BASE dataset. The AKVS dataset contains individuals who are still actively contributing to the pension fund hence it generally represents individuals who are employed. The LTVS dataset contains individuals who have paused pension fund contributions but have not yet retired (nor drawn from their pension fund). It may include individuals who are unemployed, undergoing further education, on parental leave, etc. The RTBN dataset contains individuals who are drawing from their pension fund, i.e. retired individuals. The merged dataset, BASE, allows us to map out the full life-course coverage of individuals. If we only considered only RTBN, the sample is biased towards individuals who have contributed and lived long enough to draw a pension, ignoring those individuals who have undergone rehabilitation or died before drawing a pension. Considering only AKVS ignores rehabilitation efforts and gray divorces. To round up the dataset, it is also important to consider LTVS which details what happens between employment spells and retirement.

We then supplement the merged dataset with the RTWF, RSD and the VA. The RTWF details pension terminations due to deaths. If the death information from the merged dataset is inconsistent with the information in the RTWF, the individuals (cases) are dropped {about 127 individuals are dropped}. The RSD dataset details the completed rehabilitations and include information such as the broad diagnosis group, the type of rehabilitation benefits applied for, start and end date of rehabilitation. The RSD dataset also includes individuals with withdrawn, transferred or rejected applications. We only include individuals whose applications were successful and who completed the rehabilitation spell. Furthermore, about 5% of individuals undergo three or more rehabilitation spells per year. We also drop these individuals. We then supplement the merged dataset by including the additional rehabilitation information for the remaining individuals in the RSD dataset. The VA dataset includes information related to divorce and only contains divorced individuals. From the VA, we can obtain the date of divorce, pension supplements and deductions which result from divorce.

3.2 Matching

Since divorce is not randomly assigned, divorced and non-divorced individuals may differ systematically before divorce occurs. We therefore use 1:1 matching without replacement to construct a comparison group of individuals who are similar with respect

⁷Active Insured Persons

⁸Latent Insured Persons

⁹Insured Persons' Pension Portfolio

¹⁰Termination of Pensions due to Death

¹¹Completed Rehabilitation in the Insurance History

¹²Pension Equalization Statistics

to observed pre-treatment characteristics. The causal interpretation relies on conditional exchangeability (Rosenbaum and Rubin, 1983). This means that, conditional on the observed characteristics used in matching, individuals who divorce and comparable individuals who do not divorce are assumed to have had similar potential health trajectories in the absence of divorce. In other words, it is assumed that there are no remaining unobserved factors that jointly affect the probability of divorce and the subsequent health outcomes. However, the administrative data may not fully capture factors such as relationship conflict or social support.

We define treatment as the first observed divorce from the earliest observed marriage spell. We limit the treatment cohorts to divorces observed between 2012 and 2018 to ensure that each cohort can be observed for at least five years after divorce. The year of divorce is fixed as t_0 . For each treatment year, we form a separate within-year risk set. For treated individuals whose first observed divorce occurs in t_0 , eligible controls are individuals who have not yet experienced a divorce by that year. Controls may divorce later. We do not restrict the control group to individuals who never divorce because this would define control eligibility using information that occurs after t_0 . This means that it is possible that an individual who was a control before their own divorce can be counted as treated afterwards. Individuals must be alive at t_0 and must have an observed record in $t_0 - 1$. We exclude individuals with a musculoskeletal rehabilitation up to and including t_0 . They may previously have received rehabilitation for other conditions. The resulting sample therefore consists of individuals who are at risk of their first observed musculoskeletal rehabilitation after t_0 .

We require treated and control individuals to be matched exactly on gender, five-year age_band and whether any rehabilitation has occurred by $t_0 - 1$, i.e. ever_had_any_rehab_to_date. Then, we estimate a logistic propensity score model separately for each treatment year. The propensity score represents the estimated probability of divorce in t_0 , conditional on observed characteristics measured before divorce at $t_0 - 1$. The numeric characteristics we include are age, income, pension_income, cumulative_rehabs_to_date, cumulative_mental_rehabs_to_date, years_since_last_rehab, full_time_contribution_periods¹³ and part_time_contribution_periods¹⁴. The binary characteristics we include are ever_had_mental_rehab_to_date, unsuccessful_rehab_application_this_year, missing_full_time_contribution and missing_part_time_contribution. The categorical variables included are federal_state, broad_occupational_category¹⁵, income_source¹⁶ and marital_status¹⁷.

We treat missingness in earnings, pension income and contribution periods as potentially informative. In particular, observed earnings with missing pension income generally indicate active employment, whereas observed pension income with missing earnings

¹³Periods during which pension contributions were recorded for full-time work.

¹⁴Periods during which pension contributions were recorded for part-time work

¹⁵Classification of Occupations 1988 created by the German Federal Employment Agency. We used the first digit which signifies occupational area.

¹⁶This variable has the following categories regarding the source of income: 1) income only from working, income only from pensions, income from earnings and pensions, no income from earnings or pensions. The latter two categories are uncommon.

¹⁷Annual marital status is reconstructed from marriage spell records. In a few cases where an individual is married for exactly half the year, status is assigned by an unseeded random draw at the data processing stage. This can affect the variable used for propensity score balancing.

generally indicates pension receipt. We retain the observed earnings and pension values and include a categorical measure describing the joint observability of the two income sources. We also include separate indicators for missing contribution-period information. This allows the matching model to use both the recorded values and the information contained in their missingness patterns.

Within each treatment year and exact-match group, we use optimal matching. The matching procedure first maximizes the number of treated individuals who can be matched within the caliper and then chooses the combination of pairs that minimizes the total propensity score distance. We limit matches to a maximum absolute propensity score difference of 0.01. Matching is conducted without replacement, meaning that each treated individual and each control can appear in only one matched pair. To accommodate the large annual control pools, the propensity score model is fitted using all treated individuals and, where necessary, a reproducibly selected sample of controls, with the total estimation sample limited to 500,000 observations¹⁸. The resulting propensity scores are corrected for the control-sampling fraction, and the fitted model is then used to calculate propensity scores for every eligible treated individual and control. The computational limit therefore affects how the propensity model is estimated but does not remove controls from the matching pool.

We assess covariate balance before and after matching using standardized mean differences. Balance is assessed separately for continuous variables, binary variables, each level of categorical variables and indicators of missingness. We present these results in Figure blablabla. An absolute standardized mean difference below 0.10 is treated as evidence of adequate balance on the corresponding observed characteristic. Where residual imbalance above this threshold remains after matching, the affected variables are additionally included in the outcome model. This adjustment is intended to address limited remaining imbalance and is not used as a substitute for unsuccessful matching.

Using the matched sample, we estimate the average treatment effect among the matched treated individuals. We examine first entry into musculoskeletal rehabilitation, time to first musculoskeletal rehabilitation, rehabilitation duration and all-cause mortality after divorce. Musculoskeletal rehabilitation is examined over a five-year follow-up period, with death treated as a competing event. Mortality is followed for up to ten years where permitted by the end of the observation period in 2023. The amount of available mortality follow-up therefore varies across treatment cohorts.

3.3 Identification

For identification, we focus on the average treatment effect among the matched treated individuals.

3.3.1 RQ1: Musculoskeletal rehabilitation

We follow each matched individual from t_0+1 to t_0+5 and estimate a discrete-time hazard model:

¹⁸Please see the section on Dealing with a large sample of controls in the Appendix

$$\begin{aligned}\lambda_{i,\tau}^{\text{rehab}} &= \Pr(R_{i\tau} = 1 | \text{no musculoskeletal rehab before } \tau, \text{ alive at } \tau) \\ &= \Lambda_{\text{rehab}}(\alpha_\tau + \beta D_i + \mathbf{x}_i' \gamma)\end{aligned}\tag{1}$$

where $R_{i,\tau}$ is a dummy indicating individual i 's first entry into musculoskeletal rehabilitation in time in follow-up year $t_0 + \tau$ where $\tau \in \{1, \dots, 5\}$, α_τ are fixed effects, D_i is a dummy indicating divorce at t_0 and $\mathbf{x}_i$ are other variables measured at $t_0 - 1$ that we add depending on the specification. We estimate two specifications for Equation 1. In the first specification, we omit $\mathbf{x}_i$ and rely only on matching to deal with selection bias. In the second specification, we include variables whose absolute standardized mean difference after matching exceed 0.10 into $\mathbf{x}_i$. Standard errors are clustered at the level of the matched pair.

The hazard odds ratio from Equation 1 is difficult to interpret on its own as it does not show how frequently rehabilitation occurs, hence we also estimate the cumulative incidence of a first musculoskeletal rehabilitation over the 5-year follow up period using a discrete Aalen-Johansen estimator¹⁹ (Aalen and Johansen, 1978). We report four values at the the 5-year horizon, 1) cumulative rehabilitation risk among treated individuals, 2) cumulative rehabilitation risk among controls, 3) risk difference per 1000 individuals and 4) the corresponding risk ratio. Confidence intervals are obtained by resampling whole matched pairs.

The biggest threat to the conditional exchangeability assumption is unobserved pre-divorce trends, which available variables may not fully capture, especially by only observing the year prior to the divorce. To address this, we first conducted an event study from $t_0 - 3$ to $t_0 + 5$ by taking the difference in values of unsuccessful rehabilitation applications, earnings, pension income, missingness of pension income and prior rehabilitation activity between the treated and control in each matched pair and conducting a Wald test (Wald, 1943) to determine whether the differences across time are significant for each variable. Following divergences in trends prior to t_0 , we repeated the matching exercise with three lags, i.e. $t_0 - 3, t_0 - 2, t_0 - 1$ instead of only $t_0 - 1$. Since we require that individuals have an observed record, the lag-3 specification considers only the time period between 2014 and 2018. We also repeat the lag-1 specification for only 2014 to 2018.

3.3.2 RQ2: Mortality

We follow each individual from $t_0 + 1$ until $t_0 + 10$ or 2023, the last year of the sample, whichever occurs first and estimate a discrete-time hazard model similar to Equation

¹⁹This estimator recognizes that individuals who die can no longer enter rehabilitation. For example, suppose there are 100 people where 10 enter rehabilitation in $t_0 + 1$, 20 die before rehabilitation and 70 are still alive and have not entered rehabilitation. Suppose in $t_0 + 2$, 7 people out of the remaining 70 enter rehabilitation. If we treat death as censoring rather than as a competing event, the proportion surviving up to $t_0 + 1$ is $1 - \frac{10}{100} = 0.9$, and up to $t_0 + 2$ is $1 - \frac{7}{70} = 0.9$, $\therefore$ the cumulative rehabilitation probability is $1 - (0.9 \times 0.9) = 0.19$, which is an overestimation. With the Aalen-Johansen estimator, we consider the proportion which actually entered rehabilitation by each follow-up year before dying. In $t_0 + 1$, the proportion entering rehabilitation is 0.1, however, after $t_0 + 1$, the proportion remaining alive without having entered rehabilitation is $1 - \frac{10+20}{100} = 0.7$. In $t_0 + 2$, $\frac{7}{70} = 0.1$ is the share of people who enter rehabilitation, but since only 70% of the original population was alive without having entered rehabilitation at the beginning of $t_0 + 2$, the contribution to the incidence is $0.7 \times 0.1 = 0.07$, hence the cumulative rehabilitation probability is 0.17

1:

$$\begin{aligned}\lambda_{i,\tau}^{\text{death}} &= \Pr(Y_{i,\tau} = 1 | \text{alive at beginning of follow-up year } \tau) \\ &= \Lambda_{\text{death}}(\alpha_\tau + \beta D_i + \mathbf{x}_i' \gamma)\end{aligned}\tag{2}$$

where $Y_{i,\tau}$ is a dummy indicating that individual i dies in follow-up year $t_0 + \tau$, α_τ are time fixed effects, D_i is a dummy indicating divorce at t_0 and $\mathbf{x}_i$ are other variables measured prior to t_0 . Just as in Equation 1, we estimate two specifications for Equation 2 by varying the inclusion of variables in $\mathbf{x}_i$ based on absolute standardized mean differences after amatching. We complement the pooled hazard odds ratio with cumulative mortality risks using the Kaplan-Meier estimator (Kaplan and Meier, 1958). We again report cumulative mortality risk among treated and controls, the risk difference per 1000 individuals and the corresponding risk ratio at the 5-year horizon²⁰. We also run the lag-3 specification with more pre-divorce years.

In addition to the straightforward analysis of divorce on mortality, we run a mediation analysis to determine how much of the mortality difference can be attributed to ‘early’ musculoskeletal rehabilitation as result of divorce. A single binary mediator measured one or two years after divorce is insufficient for this question since it can ignore deterioration that occurs later in the follow-up window, such as economic and rehabilitation histories that change after divorce. For example, divorce can potentially change earnings which can subsequently have the ability to affect the probability of entering musculoskeletal rehabilitation and dying.

Let $D_i \in \{0,1\}$ is divorce status fixed at t_0 , $\mathbf{z}_i$ the available pre-treatment matching variables for the relevant lag-1 and lag-3 specifications, $H = 5$ the fixed mortality and mediation horizon, $\mathbf{L}_{i,t}$ the post-divorce history (income, pension_income, unsuccessful_rehab_application_this_year, non_ms_rehab²¹, income_source) in time t and $M_{i,t-1} \in 0,1$ is a dummy indicating whether individual i entered musculoskeletal rehabilitation by the end of time $t - 1$. We use information in time $t - 1$ to predict information in time t . We cannot use information from time t since we are unsure whether the dependent or independent variables are recorded first. We use weighted maximum likelihood to account for individuals actually observed in the data in a given year.

We estimate the probability of an individual i having a record for the year $t_0 + t$ given that they are alive:

$$\Pr(R_{i,t} = 1 | D_i, \mathbf{z}_i, \mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}) = \Lambda_{\text{obs}}(\alpha_t + \beta D_i + \mathbf{z}_i' \psi + \mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}' \psi_L + \mu M_{i,t-1})\tag{3}$$

We then predict $\hat{p}_{obs,i}(u)$, i.e. the probability that individual i has a record in time u given their information up until $u - 1$ and inverse this to compute weight:

²⁰The hazard model uses up to ten years of follow-up although later follow-up years are available only for earlier divorce cohorts.

²¹A dummy indicating that an individual has a non-musculoskeletal rehabilitation that year.

$$\hat{\omega}_{i,t} = \min \left(\prod_{u=1}^t \frac{1}{\max(\hat{p}_{\text{obs},i}(u), \underline{p})}, \bar{\omega} \right) \quad (4)$$

We set the maximum weight, $\bar{\omega} = 20$, to prevent one trajectory from having too much influence. We then estimate the parameters of a model on the probability of first musculoskeletal rehabilitation in year t given that the individual did not experience musculoskeletal rehab in $t-1$ and other information in $t-1$ ²²:

$$\begin{aligned} \lambda_{i,t}^{\text{rehab}} &= \Pr(M_{i,t} = 1 | M_{i,t-1} = 0, D_i, \mathbf{z}_i, \mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}) \\ &= \Lambda_{\text{rehab}}(\kappa + \delta D_i + \mathbf{z}_i' \eta + \mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}' \eta_L) \end{aligned} \quad (5)$$

Similarly, we estimate the parameters for a model on the probability of death in year t given that an individual was alive at the end of $t-1$ ²³ is given by:

$$\begin{aligned} \lambda_{i,t}^{\text{death}} &= \Pr(Y_{i,t} = 1 | \text{alive at the end of } t-1) \\ &= \Lambda_{\text{death}} \left(\alpha_t + \theta_D D_i + \theta_M M_{i,t} + \theta_{DM} D_i M_{i,t} + \mathbf{z}_i' \rho + \mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}' \rho_L \right) \end{aligned} \quad (6)$$

Since $\mathbf{L}_{i,t}$ is itself affected by divorce and evolves annually, we cannot hold it fixed at its observed values when generating the hypothetical divorce paths needed for the mediation decomposition²⁴. Hence, we need to model the evolution of $\mathbf{L}_{i,t}$ among individuals who survive, i.e. observations where $Y_{i,t} = 0$, so that we can simulate the counterfactual histories under the hypothetical divorce status for our mediation analysis (Robins, 1986; Lin et al., 2017). We fit five separate models on the survivors, weighted by the same $\hat{\omega}_{i,t}$ (Lin et al., 2017) used in the weighted versions of Equations 5 and 6. We use a log-scale linear regressions for income and pension_income, logit for unsuccessful_rehab_application_this_year and non_ms_rehab, and multinomial logit for income_source. These five models condition on the covariates used for matching $\mathbf{z}_i$, $\mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}$, current mediator $M_{i,t}$ and prior mediator $M_{i,t-1}$. The log-scale models for income and pension_income additionally include income_source, and the logit models include income_source, income and pension_income. Please see the section on Updating the evolution of $\mathbf{L}_{i,t}$ in the Appendix.

Once the parameters for these five equations are estimated, we simulate the counterfactual histories, one year at a time using the following process.

1. Rehab probability (uses $\mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}$) $\rightarrow$ draw $\rightarrow M_{i,t}$

²²Weighed version: $\ell_{\text{rehab}} = \sum_{i,t} \hat{\omega}_{i,t} \left[M_{i,t} \log \lambda_{i,t}^{\text{rehab}} + (1 - M_{i,t}) \log (1 - \lambda_{i,t}^{\text{rehab}}) \right]$

²³Weighted version: $\ell_{\text{death}} = \sum_{i,t} \hat{\omega}_{i,t} \left[Y_{i,t} \log \lambda_{i,t}^{\text{death}} + (1 - Y_{i,t}) \log (1 - \lambda_{i,t}^{\text{death}}) \right]$

²⁴Suppose an individual earns 30,000 in 2013, divorces in 2014 and then earns 22,000 in 2015. Divorce could have caused the earnings to drop to 22,000 if the individual switched jobs. To determine the individual's rehabilitation or death risk if they had not divorced, we cannot plug in 22,000 because 22,000 is already corrupted by divorce. We need a clean number uncorrupted by divorce.

- Since our data starts from 2011, we use $\mathbf{L}_{i,2011}$ which contains true values to estimate the probability of rehabilitation, $\lambda_{i,2011}^{rehab}$. Since we need to feed $M_{i,2012}$ into the next step and not $\lambda_{i,2011}^{rehab}$, we draw a random number from a uniform distribution $U(0,1)$ and if it is smaller than $\lambda_{i,2011}^{rehab}$, then the value of $M_{i,2012}$ is set at 1 and 0 otherwise.
2. Death probability (uses $\mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}, M_{i,t}$) $\rightarrow$ if individual i survives, continue
 3. History-update (uses $\mathbf{z}_i, D_i, \mathbf{L}_{i,t-1}, M_{i,t-1}, M_{i,t}$) $\rightarrow$ produces $\mathbf{L}_{i,t}$
 - We use $\mathbf{L}_{i,2011}, M_{i,2011}$ and $M_{i,2012}$ to simulate $\mathbf{L}_{i,2012}$.
 4. Hand $\mathbf{L}_{i,t}$ forward, repeat for $t+1$

True divorce status D_i is fixed at baseline and can simply be plugged into Equation 5 for rehabilitation. In order to find the counterfactual effect, we can simply plug in the opposite value since there are only two divorce statuses and each status has a direct opposite. Hence, in step 1, we obtained the rehabilitation probability and thus, predicted rehabilitation occurrence at time t , $M_{i,t}(d_i)$ for an individual with divorce status d_i . For individual i whose plugged in divorce status is $d_i = 1$, denote the rehabilitation occurrence in time t as $M_{i,t}(1)$ and when $d_i = 0$, $M_{i,t}(0)$. An individual's rehabilitation timing is given by $M_i(1)$ and $M_i(0)$ ²⁵. We then obtain the sets, $M(1)$ and $M(0)$, which contain the rehabilitation timing for all individuals.

Subsequently, when we cross $d_i \in \{0,1\}$ with the resulting $M_i(d_i)$ and $M_i(d'_i)$ where $d_i \neq d'_i$, we yield four different possibilities $\in \{(0, M_i(0)), (0, M_i(1)), (1, M_i(0)), (1, M_i(1))\}$. We might be tempted to plug in these four possibilities into Equations 5, 6 and the equations for updating $\mathbf{L}_{i,t}$ (in the Appendix) but $M_i(d_i)$ is not a fixed characteristic but the output of a year-by-year stochastic process. In other words, since $M_i(d_i)$ is based on *at least one random* draw under a hypothetical divorce status, there is no direct opposite like in the case with divorce status. Furthermore, we have two dimensions, d_i and $M_i(d_i)$, where we need a counterfactual but it is difficult to defend *individual* counterfactuals for $(0, M_i(1))$ and $(1, M_i(0))$. Think of this like a natural experiment. If we only wanted a clean effect of divorce, we can externally impose divorce on some individuals. The individuals who we forced to divorce would experience the rehabilitation timing of someone with a divorced status, likewise for the non-divorced. If we wanted a clean direct effect of divorce and an indirect effect attributable to rehabilitation, we not only need to force someone to divorce but also experience the rehabilitation timing of a non-divorced person at the same time and vice versa, i.e. we need the off-diagonal or counterfactuals. This is not possible with a natural experiment as we cannot impose both dimensions simultaneously. For example, suppose we want to plug in the $(0, M_i(1))$ combination. Suppose the probability of rehabilitation under divorce is 80% and under non-divorce 5%. This means the timing of $M_i(1)$ is likely to be earlier than that of $M_i(0)$. Hence, plugging in $d_i = 0$ together with $M_i(1)$ (which is, to put it crudely, 'contaminated' with individual i 's identity when $d_i = 1$) into Equation 6 would be like imposing both dimensions simultaneously. This argument also holds for the $(1, M_i(0))$ combination. To manage this 'contamination', we sever the link between individual i and their estimated rehabilitation timing by attaching another individual's rehabilitation timing. While $(0, M_i(0))$ and $(1, M_i(1))$ do not have this 'contamination'

²⁵For example, if $M_i(d_i) = t+2$, then $M_{i,t'}(d_i) = 0$ when $0 < t' < t+2$ and $M_{i,t+2}(d_i) = 1$.

problem, we also sever the link between the individual and estimated rehabilitation timing for consistency.

To do this, we make use of the distribution of $M(1)$ and $M(0)$. This would then be similar to imposing an external rehabilitation timing. Before step 2, we replace individual i 's value of $M_i(d_i)$ with individual j 's $M_j(d_j)$ where $d_i = d_j$. This means that when both individuals i and j have an identical plugged in divorce status, individual i will have individual j 's rehabilitation timing. This second-best approach helps us identify what the average death risk for individuals with a particular plugged in divorce status looks like under a random redistribution of rehabilitation timing²⁶.

Suppose individual i received individual j 's value when $d_i = 0$, and individual k 's value when $d_i = 1$. This means that individual i 's hypothetical rehabilitation timings going into step 2 take the values of $M_j(0)$ and $M_k(1)$ respectively. We can then plug in the four combinations, $\in \{(0, M_j(0)), (0, M_k(1)), (1, M_j(0)), (1, M_k(1))\}$, into Equation 6 in step 2 for individual i in time t . We then update $L_{i,t}$ and repeat all four steps until we reach five years. After we have completed all steps for five years, we repeat the entire process 25 times with different draws for the rehabilitation occurrence to average out noise from the simulations. Finally, we then bootstrap the sample 200 times (Efron and Tibshirani, 1993) and repeat the entire procedure.

formulae average rehabilitation and average $Y(d, M(d))$

4 Results

4.1 Descriptive summary

How many individuals are in the 20% dataset? How many person years? How many people have undergone divorce in each year? We limit matching to years 2012 to 2018 and 2014 to 2018. Who do we filter out? How many people undergo medical rehabilitation? What are the top rehabilitation codes and cases?

Of the N_T eligible treated individuals, N_M were successfully matched, corresponding to a matching rate of (X%). Because matching is 1:1 and without replacement, the matched sample contains N_M treated individuals and N_M unique controls. We additionally report the number of unmatched treated individuals, matching rates by treatment year, the distribution of propensity scores, and the mean and maximum propensity score distances between matched individuals.

figure to show the event study coefficients and maybe Wald test - joint coefficient test

lag1 vs lag3 specification comparison with sample size and number of matches maybe?

²⁶One caveat is that, it may be possible that individual j 's rehabilitation timing is unlikely to be produced given individual i 's rehabilitation probability, for example, if individual j 's probability of rehabilitation in year 1 is high (e.g., 90%) while individual i 's is low (e.g., 10%). This is called a positivity or overlap concern (VanderWeele et al., 2014; Petersen et al., 2012).

4.2 RQ1: Musculoskeletal rehabilitation

4.3 RQ2: Mortality

5 Discussion

6 Conclusion

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Appendix

Rehabilitation system in Germany

For an individual covered by statutory health insurance, musculoskeletal pain first enters the health insurance system through sickness absence rather than through the DRV. If pain makes an employee unable to work, the individual must immediately inform the employer of the incapacity and the expected duration. If the incapacity lasts longer than three calendar days, a medical certificate needs to be acquired from the individual’s general practitioner, although the employer may require certification from the first day. The employer continues to pay the normal salary for up to six weeks for incapacity caused by the same illness (Bundesrepublik Deutschland, 1994). After the six weeks, if the illness continues, the statutory health insurer steps in and pays *Krankengeld*, which is usually about 70% of covered gross income up to a maximum of 90% of net income. For the same illness, this benefit is limited to 78 weeks within a 3-year period, counted from the first day of incapacity, meaning that the time of illness paid by the employer is included in the 78 weeks (Bundesrepublik Deutschland, 1988). Medical rehabilitation facilitated by the DRV requires a separate application and assessment of whether earning capacity is substantially endangered or already reduced, if rehabilitation is expected to prevent or improve that reduction (Bundesrepublik Deutschland, 1989; Deutsche Rentenversicherung, n.d.). This application is usually independent of the six weeks and *Krankengeld* although the health insurer can allow the individual ten weeks to submit a rehabilitation application indicating that earning capacity is threatened (Bundesrepublik Deutschland, 1988). For musculoskeletal conditions, the DRV assessment focuses on documented functional limitations and their consequences for work and social participation. Chronic pain, psychosocial circumstances surrounding incapacity, comorbidity, and active cooperation are considerations in this assessment rather than four cumulative eligibility conditions. Isolated pain is insufficient to establish rehabilitation need for certain hip, knee, and shoulder conditions (Deutsche Rentenversicherung Bund, 2005). Approved medical rehabilitation is normally provided on an inpatient or full-day outpatient basis and usually lasts approximately three weeks. The employer continues wages during rehabilitation if entitlement remains, otherwise, the DRV may pay *Übergangsgeld*, normally 68% of previous net earnings or 75% for an insured person with a qualifying child, while entitlement to *Krankengeld* is suspended (Deutsche Rentenversicherung; Bundesrepublik Deutschland, n.d. 1988).

Dealing with a large sample of controls

Suppose in 2015, there are 50,000 individuals who are divorced and 2 million eligible controls. Using all 2 million controls to estimate the logit model would cause memory issues and take a long time to run. So we imposed a cap of 450,000(500,000 – 50,000) eligible controls which are then randomly selected, although the same seed is used for reproducibility. If there are less than 450,000 eligible controls, we use all of them to

estimate the parameters for the logit model. Once we have estimated the logit model, we estimate the propensity score for everyone, not only the 450,000 controls and 50,000 treated. Then we match based on propensity scores and end up with a treated-control pair, i.e. in 2015, we would have 50,000 treated and 50,000 controls.

Updating the evolution of $\mathbf{L}_{i,t}$

We first estimate the parameters of the model for `income_source`. Let `income_source` be denoted by $S_{i,t}$:

$$\Pr(S_{i,t} = k | \cdot) = \frac{\exp\left(c_k + \delta_k D_i + \mathbf{z}'_i \eta_k + \mathbf{L}'_{i,t-1} \eta_{L,k} + \mu_k M_{i,t-1} + \zeta_k M_{i,t} + \tau_{k,t}\right)}{\sum_{k'} \exp(\cdot)}$$

where c_k is the constant and $\tau_{k,t}$ is the time fixed effect at year t for category k .

Then, we estimate the parameters for the models on `income` and `pension_income` using the equation structure below. Let $A_{i,t}$ represent `income` and `pension_income`:

$$\log(1 + A_{i,t}^v) = c_v + \beta_v D_i + \mathbf{z}'_i \gamma_v + \mathbf{L}'_{i,t-1} \gamma_{L,v} + \mu_v M_{i,t-1} + \zeta_v M_{i,t} + \tau_{v,t} + \phi'_v \mathbb{I}[\tilde{S}_{i,t}] + \varepsilon_{i,t}^v$$

where v indicates whether we are estimating `income` or `pension_income`, c_v is the constant, $\tilde{S}_{i,t}$ was the previously estimated `income_source` and $\tau_{v,t}$ is the time fixed effect.

We finally estimate the parameters for the model on the binary indicators `non_ms_rehab` and `unsuccessful_rehab_application_this_year`:

$$\Pr(B_{i,t}^1 = 1 | \cdot) = \Lambda\left(\alpha_1 + \theta_1 D_i + \mathbf{z}'_i \rho_1 + \mathbf{L}'_{i,t-1} \rho_{L,1} + \mu_1 M_{i,t-1} + \nu_1 M_{i,t} + \tau_{1,t} + \tilde{\mathbf{A}}'_{i,t} \pi_1 + \mathbb{I}[\tilde{S}_{i,t} = 1] \pi_{S,1}\right)$$

$$\Pr(B_{i,t}^2 = 1 | \cdot, B_{i,t}^1) = \Lambda\left(\alpha_2 + \theta_2 D_i + \mathbf{z}'_i \rho_2 + \mathbf{L}'_{i,t-1} \rho_{L,2} + \mu_2 M_{i,t-1} + \nu_2 M_{i,t} + \tau_{2,t} + \tilde{\mathbf{A}}'_{i,t} \pi_2 + \mathbb{I}[\tilde{S}_{i,t}] \pi_{S,2} + \pi_B \tilde{B}_{i,t}^1\right)$$

where $B_{i,t}^1$ is a dummy representing `unsuccessful_rehab_application_this_year` and is estimated first, $B_{i,t}^2$ is a dummy representing `non_ms_rehab` which is estimated second hence also contains the predicted $\tilde{B}_{i,t}^1$ and $\tilde{\mathbf{A}}_{i,t}$ is a vector containing the drawn level (not log) amounts of (`income` `pension_income`) which we just estimated in the log-scale linear regressions above.